

On the History of Rock Music

Yveta Kajanová

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Introduction

Thorough research and analyses on the theory and history of rock music have not been published until recently. The reason for this stems from the relatively short history of rock music as a genre, which does not allow an adequate analytical perspective on the historical and artistic values of rock. Furthermore, the existing methodologies used in other areas of musicology cannot be directly applied to rock music, since rock has its own specific characteristics that differentiate it from other genres of music. The issue is further complicated because much previous research has coupled its analysis with non-musical disciplines such as sociology and other social sciences, business management, economics and aesthetics. With those aspects being perhaps the most commonly researched, rock encyclopaedias and dictionaries have mainly focused on the most successful bands and their songs, financial earnings, the songs' highest rating in British and American charts and how many weeks they stayed there. Aesthetic and sociological works on rock music have tried to illuminate the importance of rock personalities, and their appeal to the listener, by examining both the musical subcultures and the social milieu of the listener. For example, Dieter Baacke, one of the first rock theoreticians, in *Beat – die sprachlose Opposition*¹ identifies “criminals, and counter-cultural and rebellious group movements” as being associated with 1960s beat music. They organised protests without a clear purpose. Amongst the “criminals”, Baacke saw groups of “politically radical” students who based their ideas on theory and organized collective protests. The “beatniks” included bands, along with hippies, drop-outs and other social non-conformists; some consciously adopting aesthetic values which had previously been the preserve of the middle and upper classes. There were also the instances of the beat as a medium of expression that was not tied to a specific social class; and we certainly acknowledge that the beat movement is classless.

Using Baacke's analysis of rock's social environment, we can make some conclusions about late 1960s rock music:

1. Beat is an unconscious form of protest, an opposition without a clear purpose.
2. Although aggression is beyond the core of the beat itself, rock, however, is not an amiable expression of art towards the wider society, as it has created

1 München: Juventa Verlag, 1968.

“narcissistic boundaries within the listener”. Beat began because of the powerful institutional influences, such as schools, teachers, and parents, who forced individuals to socialise.

3. Beat is a culture with its own symbolic characteristics including clothing, hair-styles, make-up, image and social context. All these components can result in a synaesthetic effect.
4. It is also a subculture that reflects the conflict between generations. Rock projects new ideas onto life and society from its increasing adoption of socio-political criticism.

Richard Meltzer, in his book *The Aesthetics of Rock*², investigates the semantic meanings in rock compositions though, at the same time, he is aware of the extent to which their lyrics reflect the banality and triviality of the world. The lyrics of rock songs are influenced by the social and environmental conditions in which people live including sexuality, “ritualised chaos”, “games on convention”, religion and technology.

Meltzer confronts the aesthetics of rock with a comparison of symbolic meanings across other forms of art including fine art (Marcel Duchamp), literature and film. Meltzer was one of the first rock theoreticians as well as a critic. He studied philosophy at Yale University, was a proponent of performance art and a student of Allan Kaprow³. He later wrote lyrics for the heavy metal band Blue Öyster Cult.

As punk or heavy metal⁴ are superficially manifested as juvenile delinquency, the subsequent studies seek a deeper insight into rock’s subcultures and try to

2 New York: Da Capo Press, 1970, second edition 1987.

3 Allan Kaprow (1927-2006) was an American painter and one of the creators of performance art. Performance art was followed by the expansion into the production of intermedia compositions, conceptualism and happenings. Fujak, Július: *Musical Correlativity. Notes on Unconventional Music Aesthetic*. Nitra: ILAC Faculty of Arts, UCP, 2005; Podpera, Rastislav: *Quo vadis musica: premeny sociálnych funkcií hudby*. Bratislava: Veda, 2006.

4 Epstein S. Jonathon & Pratto, J. David: “Juvenile Delinquency and Satanic Identification”. In *Popular Music and Society*. Bowling Green University Popular Press, Winter 1990, pp. 67-75; Epstein, S. Jonathon, Pratto, J. David & Skipper, K.J.: “Teenagers, Behavioral Problems and Preferences for Heavy Metal and Rap Music: A Case Study of a Southern Middle School”. In *Deviant Behavior*, No.11, 1990, p. 381-394; Gross, L. Robert: “Heavy Metal Music: A New Subculture in American Society”. In *The Journal of Popular Culture*, 1990, No. 24, pp. 119-130.

Conclusion

This chapter summarizes the findings of the rock pattern research with particular reference to The Rhythm of Rock chapter. Theoreticians agree on the basic premise that rhythm is a specific element in jazz music, and by extension must also be a specific element in rock music.

When researching rhythm as a driving movement with its own inner organisation⁶², in jazz and rock music particular aspects need to be considered when analysing their rhythm patterns.

Firstly, rhythm is associated with various musical and non-musical attributes, which explains its differing roles in musical cultures around the world.⁶³ It also means that research into rhythm needs to combine an analysis of specific musical characteristics (such as musical thinking, and specific perceptions of time in music and its organisation) with a study of the psychological (emotionality in rhythm), acoustic (physical measurability of time) and sociological factors (including the close relationship of the rhythm with geographically defined societies⁶⁴). However, comprehensive rhythm analysis, when using specialised computer or statistical methods, requires a distancing from the larger aspects to allow focusing on the measurable specifics.

62 “According to Plato, rhythm means a movement. A movement needs time and space... Not every movement in time and space is rhythm. Plato defined rhythm as an organised movement. Bielawski, Ludwik: “Grundlagen des musikalischen Rhythmus.” In *Musicologica Slovaca*, Rhythmik und Metrik in traditionellen Musikkulturen, SAV Bratislava 1990, p. 13.

63 Sachs, Curt: *Rhythm and Tempo*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1953; Seashore, Carl Emil: *Psychology of Music*. New York: McGraw Hill Book Comp., 1967.

64 In analysing rhythm, several authors (e.g. Gabrielsson, 1984; De la Motte–Haber, 1968; Stockman, 1981) emphasise its specific motional characteristics, and sensory and psychological aspects. These components together with regional and geographical influences create various deviations and nuances in rhythm perception. This explains the differences between, for example, the rhythms in African music, European music, Indian music etc.

A complementarity of rhythm⁶⁵, polyrhythm⁶⁶ and polymetrical part settings⁶⁷ in either rock or jazz will also contribute to a perception of a complex rhythm. The beat-off beat principle, complementarity, polyrhythm, and polymetrics are at the origin of rhythm patterns. However, the question remains as to whether such patterns are rhythm archetypes specific to rock or jazz. According to Ivan Poledňák, who follows Carl Gustav Jung's archetypal theory, an archetype is a prototype or protomodel and "*the innate experience of a species, corresponding to typical extreme life situations*"... "*formulas of people's ritual behaviour*"... and "*the existence of archetypes is merely potential and they undergo an alteration after each execution, they are ambivalent and constantly call for new interpretations* ..." ⁶⁸

The second issue arises when making a notated record of the rhythm⁶⁹. Our research into jazz and rock rhythm patterns is based on empirical methods and consists of listening to recorded music and subsequently transcribing it using the traditional European notational system⁷⁰. For transcribing jazz and rock music this type of notation is less than perfect, and there are several different options for transcribing the same rhythm section. While the nature of a particular model is not always adequately expressed by the musical notation, repeated comparative checks help to identify deviations, nuances or errors.

65 A complementary rhythm pattern is created by a mutual complementary correlation amongst the accents of the different lines in a composition. Traditional jazz is a typical example of a complementary rhythm.

66 In complementary rhythm only one pattern is used. In polyrhythm two or more simultaneous patterns are used within the same metre.

67 Polymetrical part setting is a simultaneous progression of two or more meters. Polymeter can also be combined with tempo changes (as in double time where the main tempo is twice as fast).

68 Poledňák, Ivan: *ABC Stručný slovník hudební psychologie*. Praha: Supraphon, 1984, p. 35.

69 Tagg, Philip: "Analysing Popular Music: Theory, Method and Practice". In *Popular Music* 1982, No. 2, pp. 37-67. Dorůžka, Lubomír: "Anmerkungen zur musikalischen Analyse von Jazz und Rock". In *Jazzforschung* 1977/VII, No. 8, Graz, pp. 67-82.

70 "The transcriptional and notational issues are the primary starting point... A century-long debate over notational processes has resulted in two analytical methods: electronic diagrams including several quantitative methods of measurement, and an ongoing critical analysis of primary music sources with a specific focus on the rhythmical and metrical interpretation of the music." Elschek, Oskár: "Zeitliche und räumliche Prinzipien der Musikgestaltung." In *Musicologica Slovaca*, Rhythmik und Metrik in traditionellen Musikkulturen. Bratislava: SAV, 1990, p. 28.

Research Methods and Research Findings

This monograph follows the publication *On the History of Jazz Music*, it has the same approach and its findings are based on analyses of 420 samples that are associated with the chronological development of various rock styles, as commonly defined by professionals and critics. The samples in both publications were selected at random.⁷¹

When analysing the repetition of rhythm models it is essential to determine the length of each single pattern⁷². A rhythm pattern is a section of the composition that is characterised by a specific structure⁷³. In our research rhythm pattern samples were studied for the changes in their structures throughout the composition.

Since jazz and rock genres have evolved into complex, highly developed forms, different rhythm patterns specific to particular styles can be found in them. It is also likely that these patterns represent typical jazz and rock archetypal rhythmic models.

Therefore, at the beginning of our research we hypothesised as to whether jazz and rock rhythm patterns exist in these genres as primary archetypal forms. The hypothesis was verified by empirical research methods, that is by listening to and transcribing rhythm patterns using a traditional notation. This was followed by an analysis of the transcribed patterns together with records of their frequency in the different jazz and rock styles in relation to their chronological sequence.

Another research objective was to identify the frequency of rhythm archetypes in particular songs, to ascertain whether the occurrence of rock archetypes is any different from that in jazz, what the probability of archetype occurrences is and how it can be numerically demonstrated. The difficulty in examining rhythm archetypes is increased by their tendency to constantly spur new variations in the styles' development and even during a composition's performance.⁷⁴

71 Using 823 various musical examples, the research into jazz and rock rhythm patterns was carried out between 1990 and 1998. The preliminary results were published in the monograph *Kapitoly o jazze a rocku* by Yvetta Kajanová (Bratislava: Epos, 2003).

72 Zaminer, Friedrich: *Rhythmus und Zeitdauer – Organisation*. Zweites Colloquium der Walcker – Stiftung zur Terminologie der Musik des 20. Jahrhunderts. 1972, pp. 60-69.

73 In earlier jazz genres, rhythm pattern durations were approximately 3 to 5 minutes. In more modern jazz styles (from bebop to present) and most rock compositions, the rhythm patterns are longer.

74 Previous studies on jazz styles characterised their rhythm patterns as an unmutable element. Asriel, André: *Jazz. Aspekte und Analysen*. Berlin: VEB, 1985, p. 314-26,

The reworking of patterns in jazz music differs from that in rock. Whilst in jazz the principle of improvisation, constant pattern changes, redeveloping or reinventing the model, and recreating new forms within a single song are used, in rock music pattern repetitions are rather preferred. However, repetitions are not always identical and nuances can occur as well. Hence a pattern repetition may become a new variation as it flows into a new contextual relationship with the melodic section as well as real time. Unlike in jazz, where pattern changes occur within a single piece, in rock music, the variations occur across several compositions in which the same rhythm archetypes are found.

Jazz and rock patterns are closely associated with particular styles during their developmental stages. Unlike European classical music, jazz and rock genres do not span centuries, but only cover twenty-years, a decade (e.g. traditional jazz, swing, rock and roll, hard rock, and art rock), or an even shorter period (e.g. punk rock and gothic rock). In principle, when a certain rhythm pattern is established in a particular style, it becomes and remains typical of the style, even after the style itself ceases to be a progressive trend in jazz or rock development. Research into jazz and rock patterns can illuminate any issues about the styles which have remained obscure and chaotic as far as the mainly modern genres are concerned. Furthermore, such research could also contribute to resolving the question as to whether the latest developments in rock (gothic rock, hard core, trash metal, speed metal, grind core and grunge) really are thoroughbred styles or whether they are simply descriptive tools used by critics, or even mere inventions by rock fans.⁷⁵

By means of a structural rhythm analysis it is possible to not only identify the characteristic rhythm patterns employed in particular jazz and rock style eras, but also to identify the basic rhythm pattern - the archetype or proto-pattern which characterises jazz and rock in general - that had already existed in common consciousness at the origin of a particular genre. We refer to rhythm patterns in Afro-American folk music, ragtime, and traditional jazz, to those used in rock and roll, and also the patterns used by the first rock bands such as The Beatles and The Rolling Stones. The early rhythm models should appear in all subsequent jazz and

Berendt, Joachim Ernst: *Kniha o jazze*. Bratislava: Supraphon, 1968. *Das Jazzbuch. Entwicklung und Bedeutung des Jazzmusik*. Frankfurt: Fischer, 1953; *Das Jazzbuch. Von Rag bis Rock*. Frankfurt: Fischer, 1973.

75 Gammond, Peter: *The Oxford Companion to Popular Music*. Oxford, New York 1991, Panek, Waclaw: *Mały słownik muzyki rozrywkowej*. ZAKR, Warszawa 1986, Ward, Edward & Stokes, Geoffrey & Tucker, Ken: *Rock of Ages. The Rolling Stone History of Rock and Roll*. New York: Rolling Stone Press, 1986.

rock styles as the basic primary patterns: they are the archetypes that jazz or rock music built upon and to which they keep returning in each era.

Another focus of our research was tempo. We gave it attention when it was one of the specific characteristics of a particular style, or used as one of the stylistic elements. We tried to verify the hypothesis that jazz music prefers moderately fast tempos, since they are best suited for improvisations. This “ideal” tempo, which varies according to the piece’s character, is referred to as the bounce. Moderately fast tempos prevail in mainstream jazz.⁷⁶

We hypothesised that rhythm in jazz and rock is manifested through patterns that represent rhythm archetypes. We aimed to identify the different archetypal modifications and forms being followed throughout jazz and rock history. The research objective was to prove our hypothesis that there are specific rhythm archetypes and forms that are only found in jazz and rock music. Throughout the development of rock and jazz genres musicians have kept returning to the typical archetypal patterns for their sources of inspiration. The history of jazz and rock has many shared influences and cross-overs of rhythm patterns and archetypes. Despite that, the frequency of pattern occurrence and the pattern characteristics themselves make it possible to identify typical jazz and rock archetypes.

Example a - jazz



76 Kneif, Tibor: *Sachlexikon Rockmusik. Instrumente, Stile, Techniken, Industrie und Geschichte*. Reinbek bei Hamburg: Rowohlt 1978; Panek, Waclaw: *Mały słownik muzyki rozrywkowej*. Warszawa: ZAKR 1986; Wicke, Peter & Ziegenrucker, Wieland: *Rock, Pop, Jazz, Folk. Handbuch der populären Musik*. Leipzig: VEB, 1985.

Example b - rock



The *Examples a* and *b* are the basic jazz and rock rhythm archetypes which, when modified, can create new patterns.

After the 1980s' trend to fuse jazz with rock, pop and folk music - which resulted in patterns having a stock of unoriginal rhythms - the impulse to re-introduce typical jazz patterns was inevitable. The post-bop era jazz synthesis is found, for example in Wynton Marsalis's and Randy Becker's music. Similarly in the 1970s, rock music adopted rhythm patterns from other genres, for example jazz or waltz rhythms, and some rhythmic principles from European classical music. Art rock and experimental rock (Frank Zappa, Velvet Underground) use other than 4/4 metre, which is generally typical of modern popular music, but they also absorb rhythm patterns from wider sources (e.g. classical music or jazz). This, in turn, explains the emergence of punk rock with its rejection of any jazz or non-rock features in its rhythms.

Some pure rock styles that did not adopt any jazz patterns are heavy metal, hard core, speed metal and thrash metal. Their rhythm models are practically identical; hence it is not possible to differentiate between them solely by rhythm pattern analysis. All derive from the same musical base - heavy metal elements – and their differentiation is through cultural and attitudinal characteristics.

Rock Pattern Findings

In the sampled rock music, of 420 patterns the rhythm archetypes were found in 293 examples, which represents 70% of cases. Thus the probability of rock rhythm archetype occurrence is 0.70 calculated using the following formula:

$$P_{(A)} = \frac{m}{n}$$

where $m=293$, $n=420$, and hence $P_{(A)}=0.70$.

This means that 7 out of 10 randomly chosen examples may contain rhythm archetypes and 3 may feature different patterns. An archetype occurrence rate of approximately 90% was found in post-rock and roll music, punk rock and heavy metal; 80% in hard rock, new wave and thrash metal; 70% for rock and roll (here rhythm patterns are developed, but also jazz patterns appear); and 60% in gothic rock, electronic rock and soft rock. The rate was approximately 50% in art rock, hard core, speed metal and experimental rock. As little as 30% were found in the new age style and, considering its philosophical background, the genre does not fit well within rock music's ambit.

Jazz Pattern Findings

Jazz rhythm archetypes were found in 178 instances of the 403 examples, which represents 44.1% of cases. The rest were different, variable, or products of spontaneous creativity rather than repetition of archetypal models. Thus, the probability of a jazz rhythm archetype occurrence is 0.44, which means that of ten randomly selected examples, four may feature the jazz archetypes, and the remaining six might not.

It is also possible to calculate the probability of archetype occurrence in those styles which adopt non-jazz elements, or where patterns are innovatively and creatively re-worked.

We estimated a rhythm archetype repetition of less than 40% in free jazz, a style which overturns conventional models, and a repetition of less than 30 % in the traditional jazz, where the typical jazz rhythm was only just emerging. We expected a similar occurrence rate - less than 30% - in jazzrock, since rock rhythm archetypes

prevail in this particular jazz style. Approximately a 50% pattern occurrence was found in bebop, cool jazz and west coast jazz styles, where jazz musicians have tried to abandon jazz rhythm stereotypes and sought new means of expression. We expect a pattern occurrence rate of about 60% in hard bop, 70% in soul jazz and about 60% in swing. In ragtime music, no archetypes could be found.

In conclusion, the pattern repetition in rock music is 70% compared to 44 in jazz; this shows that jazz music generally employs a far more creative approach to pattern building.

The following tables show the probabilities of rhythm archetype occurrence in particular jazz and rock styles. A further and extended quantitative study would assist to verify or refine the research results.

Table 1

	The Total number of researched patterns	Occurrence of archetypes	No. of researched styles
Jazz	403	178	11
Rock	420	293	16

Table 2

	Probability of the archetype occurrence (coefficient)	Probability of the archetype occurrence (percentage)
Jazz	0.441	44 %
Rock	0.697	70 %

Table 3

Jazz Genre	Occurrence Rate
Ragtime	0 %
Traditional jazz	30 %
Swing	60 %
Be bop	50 %
Cool jazz	50 %
West coast jazz	50 %
Hard bop	60 %
Soul jazz	70 %
Free jazz	40 %
Mainstream	50 %
Jazz-rock and Fusion music	30 %

Table 4

Rock Genre	Occurrence Rate
Rock and roll	70 %
Post-rock and roll	90 %
Punk rock, heavy metal	90 %
Hard rock, new wave, thrash metal, groove	80 %
Gothic rock, electronic rock, soft rock	60 %
Art ock, hard core, speed metal, experimental rock	50 %
New age	30 %

The world-wide adoption of jazz and rock music, irregardless of nationality, implies a universal acceptance of the basic jazz and rock norms, including rhythm archetypes. In so accepting, musicians will employ rhythm archetypes with their repetitions as the characteristic element. High proportions of jazz and rock archetypes are associated with greater uniformity in these genres and lesser use of national rhythms. In this respect, jazz and rock music are tending to become a certain universal model; hence jazzmen often say that jazz is cosmopolitan and supranational music which has developed from syntheses of many cultures. The process is ongoing even despite distances between countries.

Along with the typical rhythm archetypes, which are the essence of jazz and rock music, other rhythms (e.g. Latin-American, Jamaican reggae and those produced electronically) may also occur in jazz and rock. However, the commercial marketing of rock, and partially also of jazz music carries a risk that the more non-archetypal rhythm models are used in the compositions, the less successful their sales will be.

Summary

This book follows the work that commenced in its counterpart, *On the History of Jazz Music*. Both books are the result of a major research study in which 403 jazz rhythm patterns and 420 rock patterns were analysed in order to identify rhythm archetypes in both music genres.

Using musical and theoretical analyses, *On the History of Rock Music* follows the development of rock music from its origins up to the present time. It focuses on the relationships between the sound, improvisations and rhythms in particular styles, and gives specific attention to the development of rhythm as one of the characteristic elements of rock music. The beat-offbeat principle, polyrhythms and poly-metrics are fundamental to rock rhythm patterns. Patterns behave as archetypes for specific rhythms. An archetype is a prototype, a model, or an innate experience of a species.

When a particular music style establishes specific rhythm patterns, they become its typical features and appear in new forms in the style's subsequent development. In comparison with jazz, rock music more frequently uses the principle of pattern repetitions.

By the means of rhythm analyses, it is possible to not only identify the characteristic rhythm patterns used in particular rock style eras, but also to determine the basic rhythm pattern – the archetype – which characterises rock music in general. However, the complexity of archetype analysis is compounded by the patterns' tendency to engender new variations.

The research findings show that of a total of 420 analysed rock samples rhythm archetypes were found in 293. That means a 70% archetype occurrence rate or pattern repetition, and a probability of 0.70. In conclusion, out of every ten researched rock patterns, seven possess rhythm archetypes, and the remaining three use different rhythm structures.

Discography

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2. *Beatles: SGT. Pepper's Lonely Hearts Club Band*, EMI, 1967.
3. *Beatles: Abbey Road*, EMI, 1969.
4. *The Best of John Vangelis*, Polydor, 1983.
5. *Bill Haley and The Comets*, Muza, 1985.
6. *Cure: Kiss Me, Kiss Me, Kiss Me*, Fiction, 1987.
7. *Dead Kennedys: Fresh Fruit for Rotting Vegetables*, Faulty Products, Alternative Tentacles, 1980.
8. *Deep Purple: Perfect Strangers*, Supraphon, 1984.
9. *Deep Purple: Fireball*, EMI, 1971.
10. *Deep Purple in Rock*, Jugoton, 1970.
11. *Deep Purple: The House of Blue Light*, Supraphon, 1988.
12. *Deep Purple: Made in Japan*, Electrola, 1972.
13. *Dylan at Budoka.*, CBS, 1978.
14. *Elvis Costello and The Attractions: Ten Bloody Marys and Ten How's Your Fathers*, TMP Rec., 1980.
15. *Elvis Costello and The Attractions: Punch The Clock*, 1983, Beat Rec.
16. *Elvis*, Balkanton, 1979.
17. *Elvis Promised Land*, Opus, 1980.
18. *Enya: Shepherds Moons*, EMI, 1991.
19. *Frank Zappa: Uncle Meat*, Bizzare, Reprise, 1969.
20. *Frank Zappa: Thing Fish*, Barking Pumpkin Rec., Capitol, 1984.
21. *Frank Zappa Meets The Mothers of Prevention (European Version)*, Barking Pumpkin Rec., Capitol, 1985.
22. *Frank Zappa - Freak Out! The Mothers Of Invention*, Metro-Goldwyn-Meyer, 1966.
23. *Frank Zappa: Sleep Dirt*, DiscReet Rec., 1979.
24. *Frank Zappa: Boulez Conducts Zappa: The Perfect Strangers*, Angel Rec. EMI, 1984.
25. *Iron Maiden*, EMI, 1990.
26. *The Jimi Hendrix Experience*, Polydor, 1967.
27. *The Jimi Hendrix Experience: Electric Ladyland*, Polydor, 1968.
28. *Joe Satriani: The Extremist*, Relativity, 1992.
29. *John and Vangelis*, Opus, 1981.
30. *The Kinks, 1964 – 1968*, PE Rec., 1969.

31. *Kraftwerk*, Kling Klang Produkt, 1981.
32. *50 X The King: Elvis Presley Greatest Songs*, Electorecord, 1984.
33. *Led Zeppelin I., II., III., IV.* Atlantic Rec., 1990.
34. *Legendary* (J. Mayall, Yardbirds, Animals...), Bellaphon, 198?.
35. *Metallica: Jump in The Fire*, Popron, 1991.
36. *Metallica*, Vertigo, 1991.
37. *Mission: Masque*, Phonogram Ltd., 1992.
38. *Napalm Death: Harmony Corruption*, Earache Rec., 1980.
39. *Patti Smith: Radio Ethiopia*, Arista, 1976.
40. *Patti Smith: Horses*, Arista, 1975.
41. *Pink Floyd: Dark Side of The Moon*, Harvest, Capitol, 1973.
42. *Pink Floyd: A Momentary Lapse of Reason*, EMI, 1987.
43. *Pink Floyd: Ummagumma I., II. vol.*, Harvest, EMI, 1969.
44. *Police: Zenyatta Mandatta*, RTB Rec., 1980.
45. *Police: Ghost in The Machine*, Supraphon, 1983.
46. *Roadie*, Warner Bros. Rec., 1980.
47. *Rock and Roll*, Opus, 1974.
48. *Rock Rotation* (Beatles, Cream, Velvet Underground...), Polydor, 1971.
49. *Rockin' With Chuck Berry*, Philips, 198?.
50. *Sade: Diamond Life*, Epic, 1984.
51. *Sade: Promise*, Epic, 1985.
52. *Sex Pistols: Flogging a Dead Horse*, EMI, 1979.
53. *Siouxsie and The Banshees: Superstition*, Polydor, 1991.
54. *Siouxsie and The Banshees: Through The Looking Glass*, Polydor, 1987.
55. *Sonic Youth: Daydream Nation*, Enigma, 1988.
56. *Steve Vai: Passion and Warfare*, Relativity, 1990.
57. *Talking Heads: Little Creatures*, Supraphon, 1985.
58. *Talking Heads: Speaking In Tongues*, Sire, 1983.
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61. *U2: The Unforgettable Fire*, Yugoton, 1985.
62. *Velvet Underground: White Light /White Heat*. Verve, 1968.
63. *The Who: The Best of The Last Ten Years, 1964 – 1974*, Karussell, 1975.
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Journals

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Notes from the author

Music transcriptions: Yvetta Kajanová

Software transcriptions: Oskar Lehotský

Reviewers: prof. PhDr. Jiří Fukač, CSc., prof. PhDr. Oskár Elschek, DrSc.,
PhDr. Vladimír Brožík

This book is primarily intended to be a history of rock music although it is also designed as a textbook for students of music, aesthetics, culture and art. To gain a better understanding of the theory of rock music it is recommended that readers study the music analyses in this book and look more deeply into the pieces. Most of them are accessible on the Internet or available in libraries.

